L3 LEA · S6 ERIC TABUTEAU

Civilisation américaine : publicité et marketing

American Advertising and Marketing: a Printable Workbook

6 · 13 EXERCISES

How to use this workbook

This workbook follows the six chapters of the course on the history of American advertising, from the birth of national brands to digital targeting, and ends with the method for analyzing an advertisement. For each section, start by reading the reminder, which sums up what you must know. Then do the exercises in order, following the method step by step and writing your answers on paper. Check your work with the answer key only afterward: it explains why each answer is right, and the list of typical mistakes shows the traps to avoid. Exercises marked as fictional use invented ads, brands or figures; all historical facts come from the course.

BASICS APPLICATION GOING FURTHER

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Exercices rédigés pour l'application à partir des fiches du cours ; les situations marquées « fictive » sont inventées. En cas de différence avec le cours de l'enseignant, c'est le cours qui fait foi.

PART 1

The birth of modern advertising: brands, agencies and public relations

Key points

- After the Civil War, mass production exceeded local demand; the railroad, the telegraph and the postal service unified a national market. Advertising changed function: from announcing that a product exists to creating demand and brand loyalty.
- National packaged brands replaced anonymous bulk goods (Ivory soap 1879, Coca-Cola 1886, Uneeda biscuits 1898, campaign by N. W. Ayer & Son in 1899); national magazines financed by advertising (Ladies' Home Journal, 1883) and mail-order catalogs (Montgomery Ward, Sears) spread. The excesses of patent medicines led to the Pure Food and Drug Act (1906).
- N. W. Ayer & Son (Philadelphia, 1869): open contract, transparent commission, then creative work: the agency serves the advertiser. At Lord & Thomas, Albert Lasker adopted John E. Kennedy's formula salesmanship in print (1904) and developed reason-why copy; Claude Hopkins wrote Scientific Advertising (1923): tests, reply coupons, precise facts.
- The opposite school, atmosphere or impressionistic advertising (Theodore MacManus, Cadillac, The Penalty of Leadership, 1915), relies on image, prestige and emotion.
- Public relations shapes opinion through channels that are often unpaid and indirect (press, events, experts). Ivy Lee, Declaration of Principles (1906). Edward Bernays: Creel Committee during World War I, Crystallizing Public Opinion (1923), Propaganda (1928), engineering of consent (1947), torches of freedom stunt for the American Tobacco Company (1929).

EXERCISE 1.1 BASICS

Why did modern advertising appear? A chain of causes and a timeline

Objective : *Understand the chain of causes that turned advertising from a simple announcement into a tool for creating demand, and place the key dates in order.*

Here are eight facts from the course, in random order. (a) Ladies' Home Journal, a national magazine financed by advertising, is founded. (b) N. W. Ayer & Son is founded in Philadelphia. (c) Coca-Cola is launched. (d) The Pure Food and Drug Act is passed. (e) Procter & Gamble launches Ivory soap. (f) N. W. Ayer & Son launches a national campaign for Uneeda biscuits. (g) Lasker adopts Kennedy's formula salesmanship in print. (h) Hopkins publishes Scientific Advertising.

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: recall the problem manufacturers faced after the Civil War: what happened to output compared with local demand?
2. Step 2: list the three tools that made a national market possible, then the new actors that used it (brands, magazines, catalogs, agencies).
3. Step 3: write the chain as cause → consequence, with arrows. Each link must answer the question: why did the next step become necessary?
4. Step 4: for the timeline, write the date next to each fact, then sort them. Check with the reminder.

Questions

1. Explain in four or five linked sentences why advertising had to change function at the end of the 19th century.

2. What is the difference between an informational announcement and modern advertising? Use the example of soap or biscuits.

3. Put facts (a) to (h) in chronological order with their dates.

4. Why does the course connect patent medicines with the law of 1906?

EXERCISE 1.2 APPLICATION FICTIONAL SITUATION

Reason-why or atmosphere? Sorting ad copy

Objective : *Learn to recognize the two rival schools of early American advertising from the text of an ad, and explain the choice.*

Four invented ads, written in the style of the 1900s-1920s, for invented brands. Ad 1, Brightwell Soap: 'Why is Brightwell purer? Because every bar is boiled for eight hours and tested three times. Send this coupon for a free sample.' Ad 2, Monarch Motor Car: 'There is a car that others follow. It does not need to explain itself. Its name is enough.' (Large illustration of the car in front of a mansion, almost no text.) Ad 3, Prairie Oats: 'Each bowl gives you the energy of two eggs, costs less than one cent, and is ready in three minutes.' Ad 4, Velvet Pianos: 'In the homes where music matters most, you will find a Velvet.' (Drawing of an elegant evening party.)

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: for each ad, ask: does it give the reader concrete reasons to buy (facts, figures, process, price)? Or does it suggest prestige, emotion, an image?
2. Step 2: look for clues of the Hopkins method: precise facts, a reply coupon that makes it possible to measure results.
3. Step 3: look for clues of the atmosphere school: little text, a large image, prestige, social status.
4. Step 4: link each school to its figures: Kennedy, Lasker, Hopkins for reason-why; MacManus (Cadillac, 1915) for atmosphere.

Questions

1. Classify each ad: reason-why or atmosphere. Justify with two clues for each.

2. In ad 1, what is the purpose of the coupon from Claude Hopkins's point of view?

3. Ad 1 describes a process (boiling, testing) that may be common to all soap makers. Which anecdote from Hopkins's career does this recall, and what lesson did he draw from it?

4. Which later opposition of the 1950s-1960s does this rivalry announce?

EXERCISE 1.3 GOING FURTHER FICTIONAL SITUATION

Advertising or public relations? The Bernays case

Objective : *Distinguish advertising from public relations through their channels and visibility, and build a short critical argument on Bernays's methods.*

An invented company, Golden Leaf Tea, wants to make tea drinking fashionable among young urban Americans in the 1920s. It considers five actions. (a) Buying a full page in a national magazine with the Golden Leaf logo. (b) Organizing a 'tea dance' for university students, reported by the newspapers. (c) Paying a well-known doctor to tell journalists that tea is good for concentration, without mentioning the

brand. (d) Printing posters with the slogan 'Golden Leaf: the taste of success'. (e) Sending a press release to journalists about a new trend among students.

> **Step-by-step method**
>
> 1. Step 1: use the three criteria of the course table: the medium (paid space or press, events, opinion leaders), whether the sender is visible, the objective (selling a product or shaping image and opinion).
> 2. Step 2: classify each action, then compare with the real cases in the course: Ivy Lee's press principles, Bernays's torches of freedom.
> 3. Step 3: for the essay plan, start from what Bernays himself argued (Propaganda, engineering of consent), then from the ethical question raised in the course.
> 4. Step 4: use only the facts in the reminder; examples about Golden Leaf are invented.

Questions

1. Classify actions (a) to (e) as advertising or public relations, and justify with the course criteria.

2. Explain how the 1929 torches of freedom stunt worked, and why it is a public relations action rather than an advertisement.

3. Write a three-part plan for the question: 'Was Edward Bernays a manipulator?'

PART 2

Measuring the audience: Gallup, Nielsen and market research

Key points

- From the 1920s on, advertisers wanted to know their audience and check whether their spending was effective.
- George Gallup, hired by Young & Rubicam in 1932, applied the sample survey to ad readership; he founded the American Institute of Public Opinion in 1935. In 1936 his representative sample predicted Roosevelt's reelection, while the Literary Digest's huge mail survey, which mainly reached well-off households, forecast his defeat.
- Lesson of 1936: the size of a sample does not guarantee its reliability; what counts is how representative it is.
- Arthur C. Nielsen (company founded in 1923) measured radio, then television audiences with the Audimeter (Nielsen ratings): these measurements set the price of advertising space.
- Ernest Dichter's motivation research (1950s) applied psychoanalysis to consumption; Vance Packard denounced it in The Hidden Persuaders (1957). Today market research combines quantitative data (polls, ratings) and qualitative data (interviews, groups).

EXERCISE 2.1 BASICS FICTIONAL SITUATION

Size or representativeness? The lesson of 1936

Objective : *Understand why a smaller representative sample gives a better forecast than a huge biased one, and match each research tool to its purpose.*

Part A. Two invented surveys are run before a city election. Survey X receives 200,000 replies from readers of a luxury magazine. Survey Y questions 2,000 people chosen so that their age, income and neighborhood match those of the city's voters. Part B. Match each research tool with what it measures and its figure: sample survey; audience measurement; motivation research; tests and coupons.

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: for each survey, ask who answers. Do the respondents look like the whole population whose behavior you want to predict?
2. Step 2: remember the 1936 case: the Literary Digest had far more replies than Gallup, but mainly from well-off households.
3. Step 3: for Part B, use the course table: what does each tool measure (opinions, households tuned in, unconscious desires, direct responses)?
4. Step 4: write one sentence of justification per answer, not just a name.

Questions

1. Which survey is more reliable, X or Y? Explain using the notion of representativeness.
2. Link your answer to the 1936 presidential election.
3. Complete the matching in Part B (tool, what it measures, figure).
4. Why did Nielsen's audience measurement matter so much to advertisers and networks?

EXERCISE 2.2 APPLICATION FICTIONAL SITUATION

Audience and the price of a commercial

Objective : *Apply the principle that audience sets the price of advertising space, through a simple calculation, and choose the right research tool for a marketing question.*

An invented television network sells a 30-second slot in its evening program for $60,000 when the program is watched by 4 million households. Next season, ratings show that the audience has grown to 5 million households, while a second program, at the same hour on the same network, falls from 3 million to 2.4 million households and was priced at $45,000.

PROGRAM	AUDIENCE BEFORE (HOUSEHOLDS)	PRICE BEFORE	AUDIENCE AFTER (HOUSEHOLDS)
Evening program	4,000,000	$60,000	5,000,000
Second program	3,000,000	$45,000	2,400,000

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: compute the price per thousand households for each program before the change: price divided by (audience / 1,000).
2. Step 2: compute the percentage change in audience: (after - before) / before x 100.
3. Step 3: assume, as in the course example, that the price changes in the same proportion as the audience. Apply the percentage to the old price.
4. Step 4: check your result: the price per thousand households should stay the same.
5. Step 5: for the last question, ask what each tool measures (number, opinion, motivation).

Questions

1. What is the price per thousand households of each program before the change?

2. By what percentage has each audience changed?

3. What should the new price of each slot be if price follows audience?

4. The network also wants to know why viewers left the second program. Should it use Nielsen ratings or qualitative research? Explain.

PART 3

The golden age: television, the USP and the creative revolution

Key points

- Television spread very fast: fewer than 10% of households owned a set in 1950, nearly 90% in 1960. It became the leading medium of postwar mass consumption.
- Sponsorship (one advertiser finances and controls a program, often named after it) gave way to spots (the network sells slots to several advertisers) after the quiz show scandals of 1958-1959.
- USP, Unique Selling Proposition (Rosser Reeves, Ted Bates, Reality in Advertising, 1961): a concrete benefit, unique (the competition does not make it), strong enough to make people switch brands, repeated relentlessly. Example: M&M's, melts in your mouth, not in your hand. Reeves also made the Eisenhower Answers America spots (1952).
- Creative revolution (1960s): rejection of hammering repetition and of a condescending tone. Bill Bernbach (DDB, 1949): copywriter and art director working as a team, humor, apparent honesty, an intelligent reader (Volkswagen Think Small 1959; Avis We try harder 1962). David Ogilvy: brand image (Hathaway 1951, Rolls-Royce 1958). Leo Burnett: the Marlboro Man (1955).
- Thomas Frank: the creative revolution co-opted the codes of the counterculture (nonconformism, irony) in order to sell: hip consumerism.

EXERCISE 3.1 BASICS FICTIONAL SITUATION

Is it a real USP? Testing slogans

Objective : *Apply the four criteria of the Unique Selling Proposition to decide whether a slogan is a USP or just a catchy phrase.*

Five invented slogans for invented products of the 1950s. (a) Crispo crackers: 'Stays crunchy for ten days after opening.' (b) Sunny Cola: 'The happiest drink in America!' (c) Clearview toothpaste: 'Cleans your teeth.' (d) Rapido headache tablets: 'Works in five minutes, because it dissolves before you swallow.' (e) Comfy socks: 'Simply the best.'

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: ask whether the slogan offers a concrete benefit to the consumer (proposition). A feeling or a superlative is not a concrete benefit.
2. Step 2: ask whether it is unique: would every competitor say the same thing? A benefit that all products share is not a USP unless nobody else claims it.
3. Step 3: ask whether it is strong enough to make someone switch brands.
4. Step 4: remember the fourth element: repetition, the same message over a long period. Then compare with the M&M's model.

Questions

1. For each slogan, say whether it meets the criteria of a USP and justify.

2. Show that the M&M's slogan meets all the criteria.

3. Why did Rosser Reeves insist on repeating the same message for years?

EXERCISE 3.2 APPLICATION FICTIONAL SITUATION

Two eras, two strategies: USP versus creative revolution

Objective : *Compare a 1950s-style ad and a 1960s-style ad using the criteria of the course (tone, reader, organization, context), and explain Thomas Frank's interpretation.*

Two invented ads for invented washing machines. Ad A (1956): a TV spot sponsored by the brand in its own show, 'The Whirlmax Hour'. A man in a white coat repeats three times: 'Whirlmax washes whiter, because of its double drum. Only Whirlmax has the double drum.' Ad B (1965): a magazine page, mostly white, with a small, slightly old-fashioned machine in a corner. Headline: 'It won't impress your neighbors.' Copy: 'It is not the biggest machine on the market. It will just work for twenty years. Some people prefer that to chrome.'

> **Step-by-step method**
>
> 1. Step 1: for each ad, fill in the four lines of the course comparison table: tone, image of the reader, organization of the creative work, example it resembles.
> 2. Step 2: look at the medium and format of Ad A: who controls the program? Which change happened after 1958-1959?
> 3. Step 3: in Ad B, find the self-deprecation and the appeal to the reader's intelligence. Which real campaigns does it echo?
> 4. Step 4: for Frank's interpretation, ask: what attitude does Ad B flatter in the reader (conformism or nonconformism)?

Questions

1. Fill in a comparison table (tone, reader, organization, real example it resembles) for Ads A and B.
2. Which model of TV advertising does Ad A illustrate, and why did it decline at the end of the 1950s?
3. Why can Ad A be described as a USP ad?
4. Explain how Ad B illustrates Thomas Frank's notion of hip consumerism.

PART 4

Regulation: the FTC, commercial speech and tobacco

Key points

- The Federal Trade Commission (FTC) was created by the Federal Trade Commission Act of 1914 to fight unfair competition. The Wheeler-Lea Act (1938) extended its powers to unfair or deceptive acts or practices toward consumers, so it can prosecute false advertising.
- FTC tools: substantiation (claims must be backed up, 1972), corrective advertising (Listerine, ordered in 1975 and upheld in 1977, to correct the claim that it prevented colds). The FTC is the general authority on deceptive advertising; the FDA deals with food and drugs.
- Commercial speech is protected by the First Amendment (Supreme Court, 1976), within limits (Central Hudson, 1980): this protection limits blanket bans.
- Tobacco: Surgeon General's report (January 1964, link between smoking and cancer); Cigarette Labeling and Advertising Act (1965, warning on packs); Public Health Cigarette Smoking Act (1970, no cigarette ads on radio and TV from January 2, 1971); Master Settlement Agreement (November 1998, 46 states, further restrictions: billboards, cartoon characters targeting young people).
- Regulation combines federal law, FTC action, state litigation and industry self-regulation (National Advertising Division, 1971).

EXERCISE 4.1 BASICS

True or false: the milestones of regulation

Objective : *Fix the key stages of advertising regulation in the United States and understand the logic of each one.*

Say whether each statement is true or false, and correct the false ones. (a) The FTC was created in 1938 to fight deceptive advertising. (b) Since the Wheeler-Lea Act, the FTC can act against practices that deceive consumers, not only against unfair competition. (c) In the Listerine case, the FTC required the company to correct its claim that the mouthwash prevented colds. (d) In the United States, advertising is not protected by the Constitution. (e) Since January 2, 1971, all forms of cigarette advertising have been banned in the United States. (f) The Master Settlement Agreement of 1998 restricted cartoon characters targeting young people.

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: check each date and each actor against the reminder.
2. Step 2: watch for words that make a statement too broad: all, not, only.
3. Step 3: for each false statement, write the correct version and explain what the mistake was.
4. Step 4: finally, put the true facts in chronological order to see the logic: first competition, then consumers, then health.

Questions

1. True or false for (a) to (f), with a correction for each false statement.

2. Put the following in chronological order: Wheeler-Lea Act, Surgeon General's report, FTC Act, Master Settlement Agreement, radio and TV ban, warning on packs.

3. Explain in two sentences why the First Amendment makes a total ban on advertising difficult in the United States.

EXERCISE 4.2 APPLICATION FICTIONAL SITUATION

A deceptive claim before the FTC

Objective : *Apply the FTC's tools (deceptive practices, substantiation, corrective advertising, endorsement disclosure) to an invented case.*

An invented company, PureBreath, sells a throat spray in the United States. Its TV commercials claim: 'PureBreath stops the flu before it starts.' The company has no study supporting this claim. After several complaints, the FTC opens an investigation. Meanwhile, the brand's marketing director suggests three ideas: (1) keep the claim but say it in smaller letters; (2) replace it with 'PureBreath freshens your throat for six hours', supported by a test; (3) pay a well-known singer to praise the spray on social media without mentioning the payment.

> **Step-by-step method**
>
> 1. Step 1: identify the legal basis: which law allows the FTC to act against a claim that deceives consumers?
> 2. Step 2: ask what the company must provide to justify a claim (substantiation).
> 3. Step 3: look for the real precedent in the course where a similar health claim had to be corrected.
> 4. Step 4: for each of the director's ideas, ask: is the claim backed up? Is the consumer informed? Is a paid partnership disclosed (Endorsement Guides)?

Questions

1. On what legal basis can the FTC act, and what will it ask PureBreath to provide?

2. Which remedy, used in a real case from the course, could the FTC impose? Explain the precedent.

3. Evaluate the director's three ideas.

4. Would the FDA or the FTC be the general authority on this advertisement? Why?

PART 5

The contemporary era: segmentation and digital advertising

Key points

- Wendell R. Smith (1956): product differentiation (attract the whole market) versus market segmentation (adapt the offer to groups with distinct needs). Criteria: demographic (age, gender, income, ethnic origin), geographic (region, urban or rural), psychographic (values, lifestyle, VALS typology 1978), behavioral (purchase frequency, loyalty).
- Targets from the 1950s-1960s: young people (Pepsi Generation, 1963), working women, the African American then Hispanic markets. Lizabeth Cohen: segmentation fragmented the postwar consumers' republic. Cable (MTV, 1981) and specialized media, then digital media, pushed targeting down to the individual.
- Digital milestones: first banner ad (October 1994, HotWired, AT&T), Google AdWords and pay-per-click (2000), Facebook advertising (2007), programmatic buying through real-time auctions, influencer marketing (the FTC requires disclosure of paid partnerships).
- Payment per click (CPC) or per thousand impressions (CPM). Conversion rate = purchases / clicks. Fine measurement, but also click fraud and dependence on a few platforms.
- Data issues: cookies (means of collection) versus personal data (the legal issue); surveillance capitalism (Shoshana Zuboff); Cambridge Analytica (2018). No general federal law like the GDPR in the United States: sector-specific laws (COPPA, 1998, children under 13) and state laws (California).

EXERCISE 5.1 BASICS FICTIONAL SITUATION

Which segmentation criterion?

Objective : *Identify the four segmentation criteria in concrete targeting choices and understand the difference between segmentation and differentiation.*

An invented sportswear brand, Stride, plans its campaigns. Classify each target by segmentation criterion. (a) Women aged 25 to 40 with a high income. (b) Customers who have bought from Stride at least three times this year. (c) People who value sustainability and an outdoor lifestyle. (d) Residents of rural areas in the Midwest. (e) Teenagers. (f) Customers who have not bought anything for two years. Finally, Stride's competitor, Pace, runs one single campaign for everybody, saying that its shoes are better than all others.

> **Step-by-step method**
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> 1. Step 1: for each target, ask what the group is defined by: who people are (demographic), where they live (geographic), what they value and how they live (psychographic), or what they do as customers (behavioral).
> 2. Step 2: be careful with ages: age is demographic, even when it is linked to a lifestyle.
> 3. Step 3: for Pace, compare with Wendell Smith's two strategies.

Questions

1. Classify targets (a) to (f) by criterion.
2. Which typology from the course could Stride use for target (c)?
3. Which strategy does Pace follow? Explain with Wendell Smith's distinction.
4. Which historical campaign from the course targeted a group comparable to (e)?

EXERCISE 5.2 APPLICATION FICTIONAL SITUATION

Running a digital campaign: costs, conversions and legal limits

Objective : *Compute CPM, CPC and conversion figures for a digital campaign and identify the legal issues of targeting in the United States.*

Stride (invented brand) runs two online campaigns for a running shoe. Campaign 1, programmatic display paid per thousand impressions: 500,000 impressions at a CPM of $8; it produces 8,000 clicks and 240 purchases. Campaign 2, search ads paid per click on the keyword 'marathon shoes': 5,000 clicks at a CPC of $0.60; it produces 200 purchases. Stride's team also suggests: (a) targeting users who visited running websites, through cookies; (b) a campaign on a game app used mostly by children aged 10 to 12, collecting their data; (c) paying runners on social media to post about the shoe.

> **Step-by-step method**
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> 1. Step 1: cost of a CPM campaign = (impressions / 1,000) x CPM. Cost of a CPC campaign = clicks x CPC.
> 2. Step 2: conversion rate = purchases / clicks x 100 (as in the course example: 300 / 10,000 = 3%).
> 3. Step 3: cost per purchase = total cost / number of purchases. Compare the two campaigns on this figure, not only on total cost.
> 4. Step 4: for the legal part, use the course: cookie versus personal data, COPPA (children under 13), FTC disclosure rules, the absence of a general federal law like the GDPR.

Questions

1. Compute the total cost of each campaign.
2. Compute the conversion rate of each campaign.
3. Compute the cost per purchase and say which campaign is more efficient.
4. Comment on ideas (a), (b) and (c) from a legal and ethical point of view.

PART 6

Method: analyzing an advertisement

Key points

- Identify: advertiser, brand, product, medium, date, presumed target (without a source, say presumed target, not actual target).
- Describe the composition: headline (hook), body copy (argument), visual (main image), tagline or slogan (memorable phrase), logo, call to action (buy, call, click).
- Roland Barthes (Rhétorique de l'image, 1964): the denoted message (what is literally seen) and the connoted message (associated cultural meanings), as in his Panzani analysis (Italianicity).
- Persuasion: logos (rational argument), ethos (credibility of the source), pathos (emotion); AIDA (attention, interest, desire, action).
- Context and interpretation: period and advertising school (reason-why, USP, creative revolution); representations (gender roles, ethnic representations), values (freedom, success, family), stereotypes and omissions. Description is only one step: analysis says what it means and why.

EXERCISE 6.1 BASICS FICTIONAL SITUATION

Denotation, connotation and the parts of an ad

Objective : *Learn to name the components of an advertisement and to separate what is seen (denotation) from what it suggests (connotation).*

Invented magazine ad, 1957, for an invented brand of instant coffee, Morning Star. At the top, in large letters: 'Ready before he is.' In the center, a photo of a smiling young woman in an apron, handing a cup to a man in a suit who is leaving for work; through the window, a new car and a lawn. Below, a short text: 'One spoonful, hot water, and Morning Star gives you real coffee taste in seconds. Tested by 1,000 housewives.' At the bottom right, the logo, a red star, and the line: 'Morning Star. The star of every morning.' Under it: 'Ask your grocer today.'

Step-by-step method

1. Step 1: find each element of the composition using the English terms: headline, body copy, visual, tagline, logo, call to action.
2. Step 2: describe the visual objectively, without interpreting: people, objects, setting (denotation).
3. Step 3: for each element of the visual, ask what it suggests in the culture of the time (connotation): the apron, the suit, the car, the lawn.
4. Step 4: find which parts of the ad appeal to logos, ethos and pathos.

Questions

1. Identify the headline, body copy, visual, tagline, logo and call to action.

2. Write two sentences of denotation and two sentences of connotation about the visual.

3. Find one element of logos, one of ethos and one of pathos.

4. Is the sentence 'The woman is happy because she is a perfect housewife' a description or an interpretation? Explain.

EXERCISE 6.2 APPLICATION FICTIONAL SITUATION

Full analysis of an advertisement

Objective : *Apply the seven steps of the method to an invented ad and write a structured analysis that links technique, context and critical interpretation.*

Use the Morning Star ad from exercise cva-12 (invented, 1957). Then compare it with a second invented ad for the same brand, 1966: a full white page, a small chipped cup in a corner, the headline 'Our coffee won't save your marriage.' The copy says: 'But it will be ready in ten seconds, which leaves you more time to argue about something else.' Logo and tagline unchanged.

> **Step-by-step method**
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> 1. Step 1: identify both ads (advertiser, brand, product, medium, date, presumed target).
> 2. Step 2: describe and analyze the composition of each, distinguishing denotation from connotation.
> 3. Step 3: analyze persuasion with logos, ethos, pathos and the AIDA path (what grabs attention, what creates interest, desire, and what calls to action).
> 4. Step 4: place each ad in its context: which advertising school does each one belong to? Use the course criteria (tone, image of the reader).
> 5. Step 5: critical interpretation: what do the ads reveal about gender roles and values? What do they leave out?
> 6. Step 6: write your analysis as a plan with three parts, then write the introduction in full.

Questions

1. Identify both ads and give the presumed target of each, with a justification.

2. Trace the AIDA path in the 1957 ad.

3. To which advertising style does each ad belong? Justify with two criteria from the course.

4. What does the 1957 ad reveal about society, and what does it leave out?

5. Write a three-part plan and a full introduction for the analysis of the two ads.

Explained answer key

Exercise 1.1 · Why did modern advertising appear? A chain of causes and a timeline

1. 1. Industrialization made mass production possible, so output came to exceed local demand. At the same time, the railroad, the telegraph and the postal service unified a national market. Manufacturers therefore had to sell growing volumes to consumers far away, whom they did not know. Advertising could no longer just say that a product was available: it had to create demand and attach consumers to a brand. This is why national packaged brands, magazines financed by advertising and mail-order catalogs developed together.
2. 2. An announcement informs: soap is available at the grocer's. Modern advertising persuades and builds a brand: Ivory is a named, packaged soap that the manufacturer promotes directly to the consumer, so that the consumer asks for this brand rather than any soap sold in bulk. The key shift, as the course stresses, is from informing to creating needs and associating the brand with values.
3. 3. (b) 1869, N. W. Ayer & Son; (e) 1879, Ivory; (a) 1883, Ladies' Home Journal; (c) 1886, Coca-Cola; (f) 1899, Uneeda campaign (the brand dates from 1898); (g) 1904, salesmanship in print; (d) 1906, Pure Food and Drug Act; (h) 1923, Scientific Advertising.
4. 4. Patent medicines were miracle cures promoted with exaggerated claims. Their excesses showed the dangers of persuasive advertising without control and contributed to the passage of the Pure Food and Drug Act in 1906. Final result: modern advertising was born from overproduction and a national market, and its excesses soon called for regulation.

Traps to avoid : Saying that advertising was invented at this time: announcements existed before; what changed was its function. · Forgetting the role of the national market (railroad, telegraph, mail): without it, national brands would have been impossible. · Confusing the date of the Uneeda brand (1898) with that of the Ayer campaign (1899).

Exercise 1.2 · Reason-why or atmosphere? Sorting ad copy

1. 1. Ad 1: reason-why (a question answered with because, precise facts: eight hours, three tests; a coupon). Ad 2: atmosphere (no argument, the car's prestige and status, a large image, it does not need to explain itself, in the spirit of MacManus's Cadillac ad). Ad 3: reason-why (three concrete, measurable benefits: energy, price, time). Ad 4: atmosphere (social prestige, an elegant scene, no fact about the piano itself).
2. 2. For Hopkins, advertising must be measured: a reply coupon shows how many readers responded to this particular ad, so the advertiser can test different versions and keep the most effective. This is the core of his Scientific Advertising (1923).
3. 3. It recalls the Schlitz beer story: Hopkins described how the bottles were washed with live steam, a process common to all brewers. His lesson: the first to explain a fact makes it his own in the public's eyes. Ad 1 uses the same idea.
4. 4. The course says the two schools would resurface in the opposition between the USP (Rosser Reeves, a single repeated rational argument) and the creative revolution of the 1960s (image, humor, complicity). Final result: reason-why argues with facts (salesmanship in print); atmosphere suggests through image and prestige.

Traps to avoid : Thinking that an ad with a picture is automatically atmosphere: what counts is whether the message gives reasons or suggests status and emotion. · Attributing salesmanship in print to Hopkins: the formula is John E. Kennedy's, adopted by Lasker in 1904. · Calling the atmosphere school irrational or useless: it is a different persuasion strategy.

Exercise 1.3 · Advertising or public relations? The Bernays case

1. 1. Advertising: (a) and (d), because they use paid space and the advertiser is clearly identified; their aim is to sell the product. Public relations: (b), (c) and (e), because they go through events, an expert and the press, the sender is indirect or invisible, and the aim is to change opinion (making tea fashionable or healthy) rather than to show an ad.
2. 2. In 1929, for the American Tobacco Company, Bernays arranged for young women to smoke cigarettes during the Easter Parade in New York, presenting them as torches of freedom. The press reported the event as a gesture of emancipation, which helped break the taboo on women smoking. No advertising space was bought and the client was not visible: the message reached the public through the press, as news. That is the definition of public relations.
3. 3. Possible plan. I. A pioneer who theorized his profession: Creel Committee propaganda during World War I, Crystallizing Public Opinion (1923), Propaganda (1928). II. Methods that hide the sender: an enlightened minority organizing the opinion of the masses, the engineering of consent (1947), the torches of freedom where the tobacco client remained invisible. III. The ethical question: shaping opinion without the public knowing who is speaking raises the issue of manipulation, unlike Ivy Lee's promise of accurate information to the press (1906). Final result: the difference between advertising and PR lies in the channel and the visibility of the sender, which is exactly where the ethical debate begins.

Traps to avoid : Classifying the press release as advertising because it promotes something: no space is bought and the sender is indirect. · Forgetting that Bernays served a tobacco company in 1929: the emancipation message hid a commercial objective. · Writing a plan that only narrates Bernays's life without discussing the question.

Exercise 2.1 · Size or representativeness? The lesson of 1936

1. 1. Survey Y is more reliable. Survey X is huge but biased: readers of a luxury magazine are wealthier than the average voter, so their opinions do not reflect the whole city. Survey Y is small but representative: its structure (age, income, neighborhood) matches that of the voters. What counts is representativeness, not size.
2. 2. In 1936 the Literary Digest's huge mail survey, which mainly reached well-off households, forecast Roosevelt's defeat; Gallup, with fewer responses but a representative sample, correctly predicted his reelection. Survey X repeats the Digest's mistake; survey Y applies Gallup's method.
3. 3. Sample survey: opinions and ad readership, Gallup. Audience measurement: number of households tuned in, Nielsen (Audimeter, Nielsen ratings). Motivation research: unconscious desires and inhibitions, Dichter (criticized by Packard in 1957). Tests and coupons: direct responses to an ad, Hopkins.
4. 4. Because the measured audience sets the price of advertising space: the more households watch a program, the more a slot in it costs. Audience measurement became the currency of the advertising market. Final result: reliable research depends on a representative sample, and audience figures determine what advertising space is worth.

Traps to avoid : Believing that more replies always means a better survey. · Confusing Gallup (opinion surveys) and Nielsen (audience measurement). · Presenting motivation research without mentioning Packard's critique.

Exercise 2.2 · Audience and the price of a commercial

1. 1. Evening program: 60,000 / 4,000 = $15 per thousand households. Second program: 45,000 / 3,000 = $15 per thousand households. Both slots are priced at the same rate per thousand households reached.
2. 2. Evening program: (5,000,000 - 4,000,000) / 4,000,000 = +25%. Second program: (2,400,000 - 3,000,000) / 3,000,000 = -20%.
3. 3. Evening program: 60,000 x 1.25 = $75,000. Second program: 45,000 x 0.80 = $36,000. Check: 75,000 / 5,000 = $15 and 36,000 / 2,400 = $15 per thousand households: the rate is unchanged, only the audience has moved, which confirms the calculation.
4. 4. Ratings tell the network how many households are watching, not why they left. To understand reasons, it needs qualitative research (interviews, groups), possibly combined with a representative opinion survey. Final result: $75,000 and $36,000; audience measurement is the currency of the advertising market, but understanding behavior requires other tools.

Traps to avoid : Computing the change in percentage from the new audience instead of the old one. · Adding the percentage to the price per thousand instead of to the total price. · Thinking that audience figures explain viewers' motives.

Exercise 3.1 · Is it a real USP? Testing slogans

1. 1. (a) USP: concrete benefit (crunchy for ten days), specific, able to make people switch. (b) Not a USP: happiness is a vague feeling, not a concrete, distinctive benefit; it is just a catchy phrase. (c) Not a USP: it is concrete but not unique, since all toothpastes clean teeth; it gives no reason to switch. (d) USP: a concrete benefit (five minutes) with a reason specific to the product (it dissolves before you swallow). (e) Not a USP: a superlative that any brand can claim.
2. 2. Melts in your mouth, not in your hand: concrete benefit (no sticky fingers), specific to the product's coating, strong enough to make people prefer it to other chocolates, and repeated for years.
3. 3. Because for Reeves, a single proposition repeated at high frequency, over a long period, fixes it in the consumer's mind. Television, present in nearly 90% of households by 1960, made this repetition possible on a massive scale. Final result: a USP is a concrete, unique, strong and repeated proposition; a slogan that is only catchy is not a USP.

Traps to avoid : Calling every slogan a USP: the course stresses that the USP must state a distinctive benefit. · Forgetting the uniqueness criterion: a true benefit that all competitors share does not distinguish the brand. · Attributing the USP to Bernbach: it is Rosser Reeves's (Ted Bates).

Exercise 3.2 · Two eras, two strategies: USP versus creative revolution

1. 1. Ad A: serious, repetitive, insistent tone; a reader to be convinced through repetition; copywriter and designer working separately (the 1950s organization); it resembles M&M's or Anacin. Ad B: humor, irony, self-deprecation; an intelligent, complicit reader; a creative team (copywriter plus art director, Bernbach's innovation) visible in the way text and white space work together; it resembles Volkswagen Think Small (1959) and Avis We try harder (1962), which turned a weakness into a selling point.
2. 2. Sponsorship: one advertiser finances and controls a whole program that bears its name. After the quiz show scandals (1958-1959), which discredited advertisers' control of programs, the networks took back control of programming and sold spots to several advertisers.
3. 3. Because it makes one concrete proposition (washes whiter), presents it as unique (only Whirlmax has the double drum) and repeats it relentlessly, as Rosser Reeves recommended.
4. 4. Ad B invites the reader to feel smarter than neighbors who are impressed by chrome: buying this machine becomes a way of rejecting conformism. According to Frank, the creative revolution co-opted the codes of the counterculture (nonconformism, irony) to sell; the rebellion itself becomes a selling argument. Final result: the USP hammers one argument; the creative revolution seduces through complicity, and, for Frank, turns nonconformism into consumption.

Traps to avoid : Saying that the creative revolution was part of the counterculture: according to Frank, advertising appropriated its codes rather than belonging to it. · Dating the move from sponsorship to spots to the 1970s: it followed the quiz show scandals of 1958-1959. · Describing the ads without using the comparison criteria.

Exercise 4.1 · True or false: the milestones of regulation

1. 1. (a) False: the FTC was created in 1914, initially against unfair competition; it was the Wheeler-Lea Act of 1938 that extended its powers to deceptive practices toward consumers. (b) True. (c) True: corrective advertising ordered in 1975, upheld on appeal in 1977. (d) False: since 1976 the Supreme Court has recognized that commercial speech is protected by the First Amendment, within limits (Central Hudson, 1980). (e) False: the 1971 ban concerns radio and television only; print and billboards remained possible and were restricted later, in 1998. (f) True.
2. 2. FTC Act (1914), Wheeler-Lea Act (1938), Surgeon General's report (1964), warning on packs (1965), radio and TV ban (law of 1970, effective January 2, 1971), Master Settlement Agreement (1998).
3. 3. Because commercial speech is a protected form of expression, the government cannot simply forbid all advertising; restrictions must respect the limits set by the courts (Central Hudson, 1980). This is why American regulation works step by step, by medium (radio and TV), by target (young people) or through agreements and litigation rather than blanket bans. Final result: competition (1914), consumers (1938), health (1964-1998), always within the limits of the First Amendment.

Traps to avoid : Confusing the creation of the FTC (1914) with the extension of its powers (1938). · Believing that all tobacco advertising disappeared in 1971. · Confusing the FTC (advertising) and the FDA (food and drugs).

Exercise 4.2 · A deceptive claim before the FTC

1. 1. The Wheeler-Lea Act (1938) extended the FTC's powers to unfair or deceptive acts or practices toward consumers. Under the substantiation doctrine (1972), PureBreath must back up its claim with evidence; it has none, so the claim is deceptive.
2. 2. Corrective advertising. In the Listerine case, the FTC ordered the company in 1975 (upheld on appeal in 1977) to correct its claim that the mouthwash prevented colds. PureBreath's claim about the flu is very similar: the FTC could require future ads to correct the false belief created.
3. 3. Idea 1: no; a false claim in small letters remains false and unsupported. Idea 2: yes; the claim is concrete and backed up by a test, so it meets the substantiation requirement. Idea 3: no; the FTC requires paid partnerships with influencers to be disclosed (Endorsement Guides).
4. 4. The FTC, because it is the general authority on deceptive advertising; the FDA deals with food and drugs themselves. Final result: deceptive claim (Wheeler-Lea), lack of substantiation, risk of corrective advertising as for Listerine; only a supported claim and disclosed partnerships are acceptable.

Traps to avoid : Thinking that the First Amendment protects false advertising: commercial speech is protected within limits, and deceptive claims can be prosecuted. · Forgetting that the burden of proof is on the advertiser (substantiation). · Treating an undisclosed paid post as simple free speech by the singer.

Exercise 5.1 · Which segmentation criterion?

1. 1. (a) Demographic (gender, age, income). (b) Behavioral (purchase frequency, loyalty). (c) Psychographic (values, lifestyle). (d) Geographic (region, rural). (e) Demographic (age). (f) Behavioral (purchase behavior).
2. 2. The VALS typology (Values and Lifestyles, 1978), which classifies consumers by values and lifestyle.
3. 3. Product differentiation: Pace tries to attract the whole market by presenting its product as different from and better than the others. Segmentation, by contrast, adapts the offer and the message to groups with distinct needs, as Stride does.
4. 4. The Pepsi Generation (1963), which targeted young people. Final result: four criteria (demographic, geographic, psychographic, behavioral); segmentation divides the market, differentiation addresses all of it with a distinctive product.

Traps to avoid : Classifying loyal customers as psychographic: loyalty is a behavior. · Confusing segmentation (dividing the market) and differentiation (standing out on the whole market). · Forgetting Cohen's point: segmentation also fragmented society into separate markets.

Exercise 5.2 · Running a digital campaign: costs, conversions and legal limits

1. 1. Campaign 1: 500,000 / 1,000 = 500 thousands of impressions; 500 x $8 = $4,000. Campaign 2: 5,000 x $0.60 = $3,000.
2. 2. Campaign 1: 240 / 8,000 = 0.03, i.e. 3%. Campaign 2: 200 / 5,000 = 0.04, i.e. 4%.
3. 3. Campaign 1: 4,000 / 240 = about $16.67 per purchase. Campaign 2: 3,000 / 200 = $15.00 per purchase. Campaign 2 is more efficient: it costs less in total, converts better and each sale costs less. This is logical: people searching for marathon shoes have already expressed an intention to buy.
4. 4. (a) Cookies are only the means of collection; the issue is the personal data gathered (browsing behavior) and privacy, the core of what Zuboff calls surveillance capitalism. In the United States there is no general federal law like the GDPR, but state laws such as California's regulate collection. (b) COPPA (1998) protects the data of children under 13: collecting data from 10- to 12-year-olds is regulated and raises strong ethical concerns. (c) Allowed only if the paid partnership is disclosed, as the FTC requires (Endorsement Guides). Final result: $4,000 and $3,000; 3% and 4%; about $16.67 and $15.00 per purchase; precise measurement must go together with respect for data and disclosure rules.

Traps to avoid : Multiplying impressions directly by the CPM, without dividing by 1,000 (which would give $4,000,000). · Calculating the conversion rate on impressions instead of clicks. · Comparing campaigns on total cost only, instead of cost per purchase. · Saying that the United States has a GDPR-like federal law.

Exercise 6.1 · Denotation, connotation and the parts of an ad

1. 1. Headline: Ready before he is. Body copy: One spoonful, hot water… Tested by 1,000 housewives. Visual: the photo of the woman handing coffee to the man. Tagline: Morning Star. The star of every morning. Logo: the red star. Call to action: Ask your grocer today.
2. 2. Denotation: a smiling woman wearing an apron hands a cup to a man in a suit; through the window, a car and a lawn are visible. Connotation: the apron and the suit connote a gendered division of roles (the woman at home, the man at work); the new car and the lawn connote suburban postwar prosperity and the comfort of mass consumption.
3. 3. Logos: one spoonful, hot water, real taste in seconds (rational argument of speed and simplicity). Ethos: tested by 1,000 housewives (credibility through supposed testers like the reader). Pathos: the smile and the image of a harmonious household (emotion, desire to be a good wife).
4. 4. It is an interpretation, not a description: the image shows a smile (denotation); saying that she is happy because she is a perfect housewife reads cultural values into it (connotation). The course reminds you that description is only one step: you must then say what the image means and why. Final result: name the parts, describe, then interpret.

Traps to avoid : Mixing description and interpretation in the same sentence without signaling it. · Confusing headline (the hook at the top) and tagline (the memorable phrase linked to the brand). · Speaking of the actual target instead of the presumed target.

Exercise 6.2 · Full analysis of an advertisement

1. 1. Ad 1: Morning Star instant coffee, magazine ad, 1957; presumed target: housewives, because the copy invokes 1,000 housewives and the headline (Ready before he is) puts the woman in the position of the one who serves. Ad 2: same brand, magazine, 1966; presumed target: adult readers, men and women, who enjoy irony; the copy addresses a couple. We say presumed because we infer the target from the document.
2. 2. Attention: the headline Ready before he is and the image of the smiling couple. Interest: the body copy explains how the product works (one spoonful, hot water, seconds). Desire: the image of comfort and a harmonious home, plus the reassurance of the 1,000 testers. Action: Ask your grocer today.
3. 3. Ad 1 resembles the 1950s style: serious tone, a single, concrete benefit (speed) presented insistently, a reader to be convinced. Ad 2 belongs to the creative revolution: self-deprecation (it won't save your marriage), a white page and a small object as in Think Small, humor and complicity with an intelligent reader who is not taken in by big promises.
4. 4. It reflects a gendered division of roles: the woman at home in an apron, the man in a suit leaving for work; the car and lawn express postwar prosperity and the values of family and success. It leaves out women who work, single people, and any household that does not match the white suburban ideal; nothing is said about cost or the quality of the coffee compared with other brands.
5. 5. Plan: I. Two ads, one product: composition and persuasion (headline, visual, copy; logos, ethos, pathos; AIDA). II. From the 1950s to the creative revolution: two advertising schools (insistence and promise versus irony and complicity). III. What the ads say about society: gender roles, prosperity, and the co-opting of irony (Thomas Frank's hip consumerism). Introduction: These two invented magazine advertisements for Morning Star instant coffee, published in 1957 and 1966, promote the same product to American households. The first relies on the image of a devoted housewife and a promise of speed, while the second adopts the ironic, self-deprecating tone of the 1960s. Comparing them shows how the persuasive techniques of American advertising changed between the 1950s and the creative revolution, and what each reveals about gender roles and consumer values. We will first analyze their composition and persuasive strategies, then place them in their advertising context, before interpreting the representations they convey. Final result: identify, describe, interpret, contextualize, criticize, always linking technique to meaning.

Traps to avoid : Describing the ads at length without interpreting them: description is only one step. · Forgetting the context (period, advertising school), which explains the change of tone. · Judging the 1957 ad with present-day values only, without first explaining it in its context. · Forgetting to analyze what the ad leaves out.

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